

DERIVATIVES PRICING

A COMPUTATIONAL & THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

©:Zac Kienzle[†]

[†] University of Queensland, Brisbane, Australia

Contents

I	Mathematical Foundations	7
1	Measure Theory	8
2	Probability	9
3	Convergence	10
4	Conditioning	11
5	Martingales	12
6	Wiener and Brownian Motion Processes	13
7	Itô Calculus	14
II	Jump Processes	15
8	Levy Processes	16
III	Stochastic Volatility	17
IV	Risk-Neutral Valuation	19
9	Assets, Portfolios and Arbitrage	20
9.1	Portfolio Allocation and Short Selling	20
9.2	Arbitrage	22
9.3	Risk-neutral Probability Measures	22
9.4	Hedging of Contingent Claims	22
9.5	Market Completeness	22

10 Discrete-time Market Model	23
10.1 Discrete Time Compounding	23
10.2 The Model	26
10.3 Existence of Equivalent Martingale Measures	30
10.4 Pricing	34
10.5 Market Completeness and Uniqueness of Equivalent Martingale Measures	38
11 Continuous-time Market Model	40
V Martingale Methods	41
12 The Black-Scholes Model	42
13 A Dividend-paying Stock	43
14 Robustness of the Black-Scholes Approach	44
14.1 Uncertain Volatility	44
14.2 European Call and Put Options	44
15 Discretisation Schemes	45
VI Monte Carlo Methods	47
16 Generating Random Numbers and Random Variables	49
17 Quasi Monte Carlo	50
18 Variance Reduction	51
VII Grid & Lattice Methods	53
19 Lattice Methods	54
20 Finite Difference Methods	55

21 Contract Sensitivities	56
21.1 Likelihood Ratio	57
21.2 Pathwise Derivatives	58
21.3 Finite-Difference Approximations	58
 VIII Financial Contracts	 59
22 European Options	60
23 Digital Options	61
24 Barrier Options	62
25 American Options	63
25.1 Approximate Continuation Values	63
26 Lookback Options	67
27 Asian Options	68
28 Basket Options	71
29 Quantile Options	72
 IX Hedging	 73
30 Delta Hedging	74
A Existence of Lebesgue Measure	78
B Linear Algebra and Functional Analysis	79
C Multivariate Differentiation	80
D Probability and Statistics	81

Part I

Mathematical Foundations

1 Measure Theory

2 Probability

3 Convergence

4 Conditioning

5 Martingales

6 Wiener and Brownian Motion Processes

7 Itô Calculus

Part II

Jump Processes

8 Levy Processes

Part III

Stochastic Volatility

Part IV

Risk-Neutral Valuation

9 Assets, Portfolios and Arbitrage

Encyclopedia of Quantitative Finance Encyclopedia of Financial Models

9.1 Portfolio Allocation and Short Selling

We will use the following notation. An element $\bar{x}$ of $\mathbb{R}^{d+1}$ is a vector

$$\bar{x} = \left(x^{(0)}, x^{(1)}, \dots, x^{(d)} \right) \quad (9.1)$$

made of $d + 1$ components. The scalar product $\bar{x} \cdot \bar{y}$ of two vectors $\bar{x}, \bar{y} \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}$ is defined by

$$\langle \bar{x}, \bar{y} \rangle := x^{(0)}y^{(0)} + x^{(1)}y^{(1)} + \dots + x^{(d)}y^{(d)}. \quad (9.2)$$

The vector

$$\bar{S}_0 = \left(S_0^{(0)}, S_0^{(1)}, \dots, S_0^{(d)} \right) \quad (9.3)$$

denotes the prices at time $t = 0$ of $d + 1$ assets. Namely, $S_0^{(i)} > 0$ is the price at time $t = 0$ of asset $n^o i = 0, 1, \dots, d$.

The asset values $S_1^{(i)} > 0$ of assets No $i = 0, 1, \dots, d$ at time $t = 1$ are represented by the vector

$$\bar{S}_1 = \left(S_1^{(0)}, S_1^{(1)}, \dots, S_1^{(d)} \right), \quad (9.4)$$

whose components $\left(S_1^{(1)}, \dots, S_1^{(d)} \right)$ are random variables defined on a probability space $(\Omega, \mathcal{F}, \mathbb{P})$.

In addition, we will assume that asset $n^o 0$ is a risk-less asset (of savings account type) that yields an interest rate $r > 0$, *i.e.* we have

$$S_1^{(0)} = (1 + r)S_0^{(0)}. \quad (9.5)$$

Definition 9.1: Portfolio

A portfolio based on the assets $0, 1, \dots, d$ is a vector

$$\bar{\xi} = (\xi^{(0)}, \xi^{(1)}, \dots, \xi^{(d)}) \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}, \quad (9.6)$$

in which $\xi^{(i)}$ represents the (possibly fractional) quantity of asset $n^o i$ owned by an investor, $i = 0, 1, \dots, d$.

The *price* of such a portfolio, or the cost of the corresponding investment, is given by

$$\bar{\xi} \cdot \bar{S}_0 = \sum_{i=0}^d \xi^{(i)} S_0^{(i)} = \xi^{(0)} S_0^{(0)} + \xi^{(1)} S_0^{(1)} + \dots + \xi^{(d)} S_0^{(d)} \quad (9.7)$$

at time $t = 0$. At time $t = 1$, the *value* of the portfolio has evolved into

$$\bar{\xi} \cdot \bar{S}_1 = \sum_{i=0}^d \xi^{(i)} S_1^{(i)} = \xi^{(0)} S_1^{(0)} + \xi^{(1)} S_1^{(1)} + \dots + \xi^{(d)} S_1^{(d)}. \quad (9.8)$$

There are various ways to construct a portfolio allocation $(\xi^{(i)})_{i=0,1,\dots,d}$.

- i) If $\xi^{(0)} > 0$, the investor puts the amount $\xi^{(0)} S_0^{(0)} > 0$ on a savings account with interest rate r .
- ii) If $\xi^{(0)} < 0$, the investor borrows the amount $-\xi^{(0)} S_0^{(0)} > 0$ with the same interest rate r .
- iii) For $i = 1, 2, \dots, d$, if $\xi^{(i)} > 0$, the investor purchases a (possibly fractional) quantity $\xi^{(i)} > 0$ of the asset $n^o i$.
- iv) If $\xi^{(i)} < 0$, the investor borrows a quantity $-\xi^{(i)} > 0$ of asset i and sells it to obtain the amount $-\xi^{(i)} S_0^{(i)} > 0$.

In the latter case one says that the investor *short sells* a quantity $-\xi^{(i)} > 0$ of the asset $n^o i$, which lowers the cost of the portfolio.

Definition 9.2: Short Selling Ratio

The *short selling ratio*, or percentage of daily turnover activity related to short selling, is defined as the ratio of the number of daily short sold shares divided by daily volume.

Profits are typically generated by first buying at a low price and then selling at a higher price. Short sellers apply the same rule, but in reverse chronological order: first sell high and then buy low, if possible, by following the procedure below.

- (1) Borrow the asset $n^o i$.
- (2) At time $t = 0$, sell the asset $n^o i$ on the market at the price $S_0^{(i)}$ and invest the amount $S_0^{(i)}$ at the interest rate $r > 0$.
- (3) Buy back the asset $n^o i$ at time $t = 1$ at the price $S_1^{(i)}$, with hopefully $S_1^{(i)} < (1 + r)S_0^{(i)}$.
- (4) Return the asset to its owner, with possibly a (small) fee $p > 0$.¹

At the end of the operation, the profit made on share $n^o i$ equals

$$(1 + r)S_0^{(i)} - S_1^{(i)} - p > 0, \quad (9.9)$$

which is positive provided that $S_1^{(i)} < (1 + r)S_0^{(i)}$ and $p > 0$ is sufficiently small.

9.2 Arbitrage

9.3 Risk-neutral Probability Measures

9.4 Hedging of Contingent Claims

Definition 9.3: Contingent Claim

A contingent claim is a financial derivative whose payoff $C : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is a random variable depending on the realisation of uncertain events.

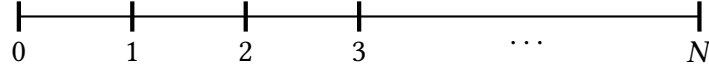
9.5 Market Completeness

¹The cost p of short selling will not be taken into account in later calculations.

10 Discrete-time Market Model

10.1 Discrete Time Compounding

We work in a finite-horizon discrete-time model indexed by $\{0, 1, \dots, N\}$



We invest a cash flow C each year in an investment plan that carries a constant interest rate r . At the end of the N -th year, the value of the amount C invested at the beginning of year $k = 1, 2, \dots, N$ has turned into $C(1+r)^{N-k+1}$ and the total value of the plan V_N at the end of the N -th year becomes

$$\begin{aligned} V_N &= C \sum_{k=1}^N (1+r)^{N-k+1} \\ &= C \sum_{k=1}^N (1+r)^k \\ &= C(1+r) \frac{(1+r)^N - 1}{r}, \end{aligned} \tag{10.1}$$

hence the duration N of the plan satisfies

$$N+1 = \frac{1}{\ln(1+r)} \ln \left(1+r + \frac{rV_N}{C} \right). \tag{10.2}$$

At time $t = 0$ one borrows an amount L over a period of N years at the constant interest rate r per year.

Proposition 10.1: Constant Repayment

Assuming the loan is fully amortized at the beginning of year $N+1$, the constant annual repayment C is uniquely determined by

$$C = \frac{r(1+r)^N L}{(1+r)^N - 1} = \frac{r}{1 - (1+r)^{-N}} L. \tag{10.3}$$

Proof. Let L_k denote the outstanding principal balance at the beginning of year k , with $L_1 = L$. The evolution of the debt is governed by the linear recurrence relation

$$L_{k+1} = (1 + r)L_k - C, \quad \forall k \geq 1. \quad (10.4)$$

Iteratively expanding this relation yields the value of the debt at the start of any arbitrary year k

$$\begin{aligned} L_k &= (1 + r)^{k-1}L_1 - C \sum_{j=0}^{k-2} (1 + r)^j \\ &= (1 + r)^{k-1}L - C \frac{(1 + r)^{k-1} - 1}{r}. \end{aligned} \quad (10.5)$$

The amortization condition requires that the debt is extinguished at the horizon N , such that $L_{N+1} = 0$. Substituting $k = N + 1$ into [eq. \(10.5\)](#) implies

$$0 = (1 + r)^N L - C \frac{(1 + r)^N - 1}{r}.$$

Rearranging for C yields the result in [10.1](#). Furthermore, substituting this expression for C back into [eq. \(10.5\)](#) provides the closed-form outstanding balance

$$L_k = \frac{C}{r} \left[1 - (1 + r)^{k-1-N} \right] \equiv \frac{C - (1 + r)^{k-1}(C - rL)}{r}. \quad (10.6)$$

□

Rearranging the result in [10.1](#) yields the annuity factor

$$\frac{L}{C} = \frac{1 - (1 + r)^{-N}}{r}, \quad (10.7)$$

and solving for the duration N implies

$$N = \frac{1}{\ln(1 + r)} \ln \left(\frac{C}{C - rL} \right) = -\frac{\ln(1 - \frac{rL}{C})}{\ln(1 + r)}. \quad (10.8)$$



For N to be finite, we require the condition $C > rL$. This means the annual repayment must exceed the interest accrued on the initial principal; otherwise, the principal balance will never decrease.

Proposition 10.2: Repayment Decomposition

The k -th repayment C decomposes into an interest component rL_k and a principal repayment component $C - rL_k$ given by

$$rL_k = C \left(1 - \frac{1}{(1+r)^{N-k+1}} \right) = Cr \sum_{l=1}^{N-k+1} (1+r)^{-l} \quad (10.9)$$

$$C - rL_k = \frac{C}{(1+r)^{N-k+1}}, \quad k = 1, 2, \dots, N. \quad (10.10)$$

Proof. Recall from the proof of 10.1 that the outstanding balance L_k represents the present value of the remaining $N - k + 1$ payments. We express L_k as

$$L_k = \frac{C}{r} \left[1 - (1+r)^{-(N-k+1)} \right]. \quad (10.11)$$

Multiplying by r immediately yields the interest component in eq. (10.9). Consequently, the principal repayment is determined by the residual

$$\begin{aligned} C - rL_k &= C - C \left[1 - (1+r)^{-(N-k+1)} \right] \\ &= C(1+r)^{-(N-k+1)}, \end{aligned} \quad (10.12)$$

which corresponds to eq. (10.10). □

We verify that the sum of discounted payments at rate r recovers the initial loan amount

$$\sum_{l=1}^N \frac{C}{(1+r)^l} = C \frac{1 - (1+r)^{-N}}{r} = L. \quad (10.13)$$

In particular, the first interest repayment satisfies

$$rL_1 = Cr \sum_{l=1}^N \frac{1}{(1+r)^l} = C \left(1 - (1+r)^{-N} \right), \quad (10.14)$$

and the first principal repayment is

$$C - rL = \frac{C}{(1+r)^N}. \quad (10.15)$$

10.2 The Model

Definition 10.1: Numéraire

A *numéraire* is a price process $(X(t))_{t=0}^T$ (a sequence of random variables), which is strictly positive for all $t \in \{0, 1, \dots, T\}$.

For the standard approach the risk-free bank account process is used as numéraire. In some applications, however, it is more convenient to use a security other than the bank account and we therefore just use S_0 without loss of generality.

Definition 10.2: Value of the Portfolio

The value of the portfolio at time t is the scalar product

$$V_\varphi(t) = \varphi(t) \cdot S(t) := \sum_{i=0}^d \varphi_i(t) S_i(t), \quad (t = 1, 2, \dots, T) \text{ and } V_\varphi(0) = \varphi(0) \cdot S(0).$$

The process $V_\varphi(t, \omega)$ is called the *wealth* or *value process* of the trading strategy φ .

The initial wealth $V_\varphi(0)$ is called the *initial investment* or *endowment* of the investor.

Now $\varphi(t) \cdot S(t-1)$ reflects the market value of the portfolio just after it has been established at time $t-1$, whereas $\varphi(t) \cdot S(t)$ is the value just after time t prices are observed, but before changes are made in the portfolio. Hence

$$\varphi(t) \cdot (S(t) - S(t-1)) = \varphi(t) \cdot \Delta S(t)$$

is the change in the market value due to changes in security prices which occur between time $t - 1$ and t . This motivates the following definition.

Definition 10.3: Gains Process

The *gains process* G_φ of a trading strategy φ is given by

$$G_\varphi(t) := \sum_{\tau=1}^t \varphi(\tau) \cdot (S(\tau) - S(\tau - 1)) = \sum_{\tau=1}^t \varphi(\tau) \cdot \Delta S(\tau), \quad (t = 1, 2, \dots, T).$$

Define $\tilde{S}(t) = (1, \beta(t)S_1(t), \dots, \beta(t)S_d(t))'$, the vector of discounted prices, and consider the *discounted value process*

$$\tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = \beta(t)(\varphi(t) \cdot S(t)) = \varphi(t) \cdot \tilde{S}(t), \quad (t = 1, 2, \dots, T)$$

and the *discounted gains process*

$$\tilde{G}_\varphi(t) := \sum_{\tau=1}^t \varphi(\tau) \cdot (\tilde{S}(\tau) - \tilde{S}(\tau - 1)) = \sum_{\tau=1}^t \varphi(\tau) \cdot \Delta \tilde{S}(\tau), \quad (t = 1, 2, \dots, T).$$

Observe that the discounted gains process reflects the gains from trading with assets 1 to d only, which in case of the standard model (a bank account and d stocks) are the risky assets. We will only consider special classes of trading strategies.

Definition 10.4: Self-Financing Strategy

The strategy φ is *self-financing*, $\varphi \in \Phi$, if

$$\varphi(t) \cdot S(t) = \varphi(t + 1) \cdot S(t) \quad (t = 1, 2, \dots, T - 1). \quad (10.16)$$



When new prices $S(t)$ are quoted at time t , the investor adjusts his portfolio from $\varphi(t)$ to $\varphi(t + 1)$, without bringing in or consuming any wealth. The following result (which is trivial in our current setting, but requires a little argument in continuous time) shows that renormalising security prices (i.e. changing the numéraire) has essentially no economic effects.

Proposition 10.3: Numéraire Invariance

Let $X(t)$ be a numéraire. A trading strategy φ is self-financing with respect to $S(t)$ if and only if φ is self-financing with respect to $X(t)^{-1}S(t)$.

Proof. Since $X(t) > 0$ for all t , scalar multiplication by $X(t)^{-1}$ preserves the equality. For $t = 1, \dots, T - 1$:

$$\begin{aligned} \varphi(t) \cdot S(t) &= \varphi(t+1) \cdot S(t) \\ \iff \varphi(t) \cdot (X(t)^{-1}S(t)) &= \varphi(t+1) \cdot (X(t)^{-1}S(t)). \end{aligned}$$

□

Corollary 10.1: Self-Financing Equivalence

A trading strategy φ is self-financing with respect to $S(t)$ if and only if φ is self-financing with respect to $\tilde{S}(t)$.

We now give a characterisation of self-financing strategies in terms of the discounted processes.

Proposition 10.4: Characterisation of Self-Financing Strategies

A trading strategy ϕ belongs to Φ if and only if

$$\tilde{V}_\phi(t) = V_\phi(0) + \tilde{G}_\phi(t), \quad t = 0, 1, \dots, T. \quad (10.17)$$

Proof. Assume $\phi \in \Phi$. Then, using the defining relation of the gains process, the numéraire invariance theorem, and the fact that $\tilde{S}_0^{(0)} = 1$:

$$\begin{aligned} V_\phi(0) + \tilde{G}_\phi(t) &= \phi_1 \cdot S_0 + \sum_{\tau=1}^t \phi_\tau \cdot (\tilde{S}_\tau - \tilde{S}_{\tau-1}) \\ &= \phi_1 \cdot \tilde{S}_0 + \phi_t \cdot \tilde{S}_t - \sum_{\tau=1}^{t-1} (\phi_{\tau+1} - \phi_\tau) \cdot \tilde{S}_\tau - \phi_1 \cdot \tilde{S}_0 \\ &= \phi_t \cdot \tilde{S}_t \\ &= \tilde{V}_\phi(t). \end{aligned}$$

Note that the summation term vanishes because the strategy is self-financing (i.e., $\phi_{\tau+1} \cdot \tilde{S}_\tau = \phi_\tau \cdot \tilde{S}_\tau$).

Conversely, assume that [eq. \(10.17\)](#) holds true. By the numéraire invariance theorem, it is sufficient to show the discounted version of the self-financing relation for each $t = 1, 2, \dots, T - 1$. Summing up to $t = 2$, [eq. \(10.17\)](#) yields:

$$\phi_2 \cdot \tilde{S}_2 = \phi_1 \cdot \tilde{S}_0 + \phi_1 \cdot (\tilde{S}_1 - \tilde{S}_0) + \phi_2 \cdot (\tilde{S}_2 - \tilde{S}_1).$$

Subtracting $\phi_2 \cdot \tilde{S}_2$ from both sides simplifies to:

$$0 = \phi_1 \cdot \tilde{S}_1 - \phi_2 \cdot \tilde{S}_1 \implies \phi_2 \cdot \tilde{S}_1 = \phi_1 \cdot \tilde{S}_1.$$

Proceeding similarly—or by induction—we can demonstrate that $\phi_t \cdot \tilde{S}_t = \phi_{t+1} \cdot \tilde{S}_t$ for $t = 2, \dots, T - 1$, as required. $\square$

We are allowed to borrow (so $\phi_t^{(0)}$ may be negative) and sell short (so $\phi_t^{(i)}$ may be negative for $i = 1, \dots, d$). Consequently, if we decide on the allocation of the risky assets, the numéraire component adjusts automatically to satisfy the budget constraint.

Proposition 10.5: Predictability of the Numéraire Component

If $(\phi_1(t), \dots, \phi_d(t))'$ is predictable and V_0 is $\mathcal{F}_0$ -measurable, there is a unique predictable process $(\phi_0(t))_{t=1}^T$ such that $\phi = (\phi_0, \phi_1, \dots, \phi_d)'$ is self-financing with initial value of the corresponding portfolio $V_\phi(0) = V_0$.

Proof. If ϕ is self-financing, then by [proposition 10.4](#),

$$\tilde{V}_\phi(t) = V_0 + \tilde{G}_\phi(t) = V_0 + \sum_{\tau=1}^t \left(\phi_1(\tau) \Delta \tilde{S}_1(\tau) + \dots + \phi_d(\tau) \Delta \tilde{S}_d(\tau) \right).$$

On the other hand,

$$\tilde{V}_\phi(t) = \phi(t) \cdot \tilde{S}(t) = \phi_0(t) + \phi_1(t) \tilde{S}_1(t) + \dots + \phi_d(t) \tilde{S}_d(t).$$

Equate these:

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_0(t) = V_0 + \sum_{\tau=1}^t \left(\phi_1(\tau) \Delta \widetilde{S}_1(\tau) + \cdots + \phi_d(\tau) \Delta \widetilde{S}_d(\tau) \right) \\ - \left(\phi_1(t) \widetilde{S}_1(t) + \cdots + \phi_d(t) \widetilde{S}_d(t) \right),\end{aligned}$$

which defines $\phi_0(t)$ uniquely. The terms in $\widetilde{S}_i(t)$ are

$$\phi_i(t) \Delta \widetilde{S}_i(t) - \phi_i(t) \widetilde{S}_i(t) = -\phi_i(t) \widetilde{S}_i(t-1),$$

which is $\mathcal{F}_{t-1}$ -measurable. So

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_0(t) = V_0 + \sum_{\tau=1}^{t-1} \left(\phi_1(\tau) \Delta \widetilde{S}_1(\tau) + \cdots + \phi_d(\tau) \Delta \widetilde{S}_d(\tau) \right) \\ - \left(\phi_1(t) \widetilde{S}_1(t-1) + \cdots + \phi_d(t) \widetilde{S}_d(t-1) \right),\end{aligned}$$

where as $\phi_1, \dots, \phi_d$ are predictable, all terms on the right-hand side are $\mathcal{F}_{t-1}$ -measurable, so ϕ_0 is predictable. $\square$

10.3 Existence of Equivalent Martingale Measures

Definition 10.5: Arbitrage Opportunity

Let $\widetilde{\Phi} \subset \Phi$ be a set of self-financing strategies. A strategy $\varphi \in \widetilde{\Phi}$ is called an *arbitrage opportunity* or *arbitrage strategy* with respect to $\widetilde{\Phi}$ if $\mathbb{P}\{V_\varphi(0) = 0\} = 1$, and the terminal wealth of φ satisfies

$$\mathbb{P}\{V_\varphi(T) \geq 0\} = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbb{P}\{V_\varphi(T) > 0\} > 0.$$

An arbitrage opportunity is a self-financing strategy with zero initial value, which produces a non-negative final value with probability one and has a positive probability of yielding a positive final value. Note that arbitrage opportunities are always defined in relation to a specific class of trading strategies.

Definition 10.6: Arbitrage-Free Market

We say that a security market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free if there are no arbitrage opportunities in the class Φ of trading strategies. We will allow ourselves to use ‘no-arbitrage’ in place of ‘arbitrage-free’ when convenient.

Lemma 10.1: Global Implies Local No-Arbitrage

If the market model contains no arbitrage opportunities, then for all $t \in \{0, 1, \dots, T-1\}$, for all self-financing trading strategies $\varphi \in \Phi$ and for any $A \in \mathcal{P}_t$, we have

- (i) $\mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \geq 0 \mid A) = 1 \Rightarrow \mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = 0 \mid A) = 1,$
- (ii) $\mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \leq 0 \mid A) = 1 \Rightarrow \mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = 0 \mid A) = 1.$

The economic meaning: no arbitrage ‘globally’ implies no arbitrage ‘locally’. Any local trading strategy can be embedded in a global strategy to which the global no-arbitrage condition applies.

Proof. We only prove (i) ((ii) is similar). Fix $t \in \{0, \dots, T-1\}$ and $\varphi \in \Phi$. Suppose $\mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \geq 0 \mid A) = 1$ for some $A \in \mathcal{P}_t$ and define a new trading strategy ψ for all times $u = 1, \dots, T$ as follows: For $u \leq t$: $\psi(u) = 0$ (‘do nothing before time t ’). For $u = t+1$: $\psi(t+1) = 0$ if $\omega \notin A$, and

$$\psi_k(t+1, \omega) = \begin{cases} \varphi_k(t+1, \omega) & \text{if } \omega \in A \text{ and } k \in \{1, \dots, d\}, \\ \varphi_0(t+1, \omega) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t, \omega) & \text{if } \omega \in A \text{ and } k = 0. \end{cases}$$

(If $\omega \in A$ at time t , follow φ in risky assets, but adjust the numéraire to offset doing nothing when $\omega \notin A$.) For $u > t+1$: $\psi_k(u) = 0$ for $k \in \{1, \dots, d\}$ and

$$\psi_0(u, \omega) = \begin{cases} \tilde{V}_\psi(t+1, \omega) & \text{if } \omega \in A, \\ 0 & \text{if } \omega \notin A. \end{cases}$$

(Invest $\tilde{V}_\psi(t+1)$ in the numéraire if $\omega \in A$, otherwise do nothing.)

We show ψ is self-financing. By construction, ψ is predictable. For $\omega \notin A$, $\psi \equiv 0$, so consider $\omega \in A$. The relevant time is $t + 1$. Since $\psi(t) = 0$, $\psi(t) \cdot \tilde{S}(t) = 0$. Now

$$\begin{aligned} \psi(t+1) \cdot \tilde{S}(t) &= (\varphi_0(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t))\tilde{S}_0(t) + \sum_{k=1}^d \varphi_k(t+1)\tilde{S}_k(t) \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^d \varphi_k(t+1)\tilde{S}_k(t) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \\ &= \varphi(t+1) \cdot \tilde{S}(t) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = \varphi(t) \cdot \tilde{S}(t) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = 0, \end{aligned}$$

since φ is self-financing. For $u \leq t$, $\psi(u) \cdot \tilde{S}(u) = 0$, hence $\psi(u+1) \cdot \tilde{S}(u) = \psi(u) \cdot \tilde{S}(u)$ for all $u \leq t$. When $u > t+1$ and $\omega \in A$ we only hold the numéraire (discounted value = 1), so

$$\psi(u+1) \cdot \tilde{S}(u) = \tilde{V}_\psi(t+1) = \psi(u) \cdot \tilde{S}(u).$$

Therefore, ψ is self-financing.

We now analyze the value process of ψ . Using $\mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \geq 0 \mid A) = 1$, for all $u \geq t+1$ and $\omega \in A$,

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{V}_\psi(u) &= \psi(u) \cdot \tilde{S}(u) = \psi(t+1) \cdot \tilde{S}(t+1) \\ &= (\varphi_0(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t))\tilde{S}_0(t+1) + \sum_{k=1}^d \varphi_k(t+1)\tilde{S}_k(t+1) \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^d \varphi_k(t+1)\tilde{S}_k(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = \tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \geq 0. \end{aligned}$$

Since $\tilde{V}_\psi(T) = 0$ on A^c , ψ is self-financing with $\tilde{V}_\psi(0) = 0$ and $\tilde{V}_\psi(T) \geq 0$. Arbitrage-free implies $\tilde{V}_\psi(T) = 0$, hence

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= \mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\psi(T) > 0) = \mathbb{P}(\{\tilde{V}_\psi(T) > 0\} \cap A) \\ &= \mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\psi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\psi(t) > 0 \mid A) \mathbb{P}(A). \end{aligned}$$

Therefore $\mathbb{P}(\tilde{V}_\psi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\psi(t) = 0 \mid A) = 1$. □

Definition 10.7: Martingale Measure

A probability measure $\mathbb{P}^*$ on $(\Omega, \mathcal{F}_T)$ equivalent to $\mathbb{P}$ is called a *martingale measure* for $\tilde{S}$ if the process $\tilde{S}$ follows a $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale with respect to the filtration $\mathbb{F}$. We denote by $\mathcal{P}(\tilde{S})$ the class of equivalent martingale measures.

Proposition 10.6: Wealth Process Martingale

Let $\mathbb{P}^*$ be an equivalent martingale measure ($\mathbb{P}^* \in \mathcal{P}(\tilde{S})$) and $\varphi \in \Phi$ any self-financing strategy. Then the wealth process $\tilde{V}_\varphi(t)$ is a $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale with respect to the filtration $\mathbb{F}$.

Proof. By the self-financing property of φ (compare [Proposition 10.4](#) and [eq. \(10.17\)](#)) and, we have

$$\tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = V_\varphi(0) + \tilde{G}_\varphi(t) \quad (t = 0, 1, \dots, T).$$

So

$$\tilde{V}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = \tilde{G}_\varphi(t+1) - \tilde{G}_\varphi(t) = \varphi(t+1) \cdot (\tilde{S}(t+1) - \tilde{S}(t)).$$

So for $\varphi \in \Phi$, $\tilde{V}_t(\varphi)$ is the martingale transform of the $\mathbb{P}^*$ martingale $\tilde{S}$ by φ and hence a $\mathbb{P}^*$ martingale itself. $\square$

The next result is the key to further development.

Proposition 10.7: Equivalent Martingale Measure Implies Arbitrage-Free

If an equivalent martingale measure exists - that is, if $\mathcal{P}(\tilde{S}) \neq \emptyset$ - then the market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free.

Proof. Assume such a $\mathbb{P}^*$ exists. For any self-financing strategy φ , we have as before

$$\tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = V_\varphi(0) + \sum_{\tau=1}^t \varphi(\tau) \cdot \Delta \tilde{S}(\tau).$$

By [Proposition 10.4](#), $\tilde{S}(t)$ a (vector) $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale implies $\tilde{V}_\varphi(t)$ is a $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale. So the initial and final $\mathbb{P}^*$ -expectations are the same,

$$\mathbb{E}^*(\tilde{V}_\varphi(T)) = \mathbb{E}^*(\tilde{V}_\varphi(0)).$$

If the strategy is an arbitrage opportunity, its initial value - the right-hand side above - is zero. Therefore the left-hand side $\mathbb{E}^*(\tilde{V}_\varphi(T))$ is zero, but $\tilde{V}_\varphi(T) \geq 0$ (by definition). Also each $\mathbb{P}^*(\{\omega\}) > 0$ (by assumption, each $\mathbb{P}(\{\omega\}) > 0$, so by equivalence each $\mathbb{P}^*(\{\omega\}) > 0$). This and $\tilde{V}_\varphi(T) \geq 0$ force $\tilde{V}_\varphi(T) = 0$. So no arbitrage is possible. $\square$

Proposition 10.8: Arbitrage-Free Implies Existence of EMM

If the market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free, then the class $\mathcal{P}(\tilde{S})$ of equivalent martingale measures is non-empty.

Because of the fundamental nature of this result, we will provide two proofs. The first proof is based on our previous observation that the ‘global’ no-arbitrage condition implies also no-arbitrage ‘locally’. We therefore can combine single-period results to prove the multi-period claim. The second proof uses functional-analytic techniques, i.e. a variant of the *Hahn-Banach theorem*.

Theorem 10.1: No-Arbitrage Theorem

The market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free if and only if there exists a probability measure $\mathbb{P}^$ equivalent to $\mathbb{P}$ under which the discounted d -dimensional asset price process $\tilde{S}$ is a $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale.*

10.4 Pricing

We now turn to the main underlying question of this text, namely the pricing of contingent claims (i.e. financial derivatives). First, we have to model these financial instruments in our current framework. This is done in the following fashion.

Definition 10.8: Contingent Claim

A contingent claim X with maturity date T is an arbitrary non-negative $\mathcal{F}_T$ -measurable random variable (which is, by the finiteness of the probability space, bounded). We denote the class of all contingent claims by $\mathcal{X}^+$.

A typical example of a contingent claim X is an option on some underlying asset S , then (e.g. for the case of a European call option with maturity date T and strike K) we

have a functional relation $X = f(S)$ with some function f (e.g. $X = (S(T) - K)^+$). The general definition allows for more complicated relationships, which are captured by the $\mathcal{F}_T$ -measurability of X (recall that $\mathcal{F}_T$ is typically generated by the process S).

We say that the claim is *attainable* if there exists a *replicating strategy* $\varphi \in \Phi$ such that

$$V_\varphi(T) = X.$$

Therefore, the replicating strategy generates the same cash flow at time T as does X . In a highly efficient security market, we expect the law of one price to hold; that is, for a specified cash flow, there exists only one price at any given instant. Otherwise, arbitrageurs would use the opportunity to cash in a riskless profit. So the no-arbitrage condition implies that for an attainable contingent claim, its time t price must be given by the value of any replicating strategy (we say the claim is uniquely replicated in that case). This is the basic idea of the arbitrage pricing theory. Clearly, the equivalence of the no-arbitrage condition and the existence of risk-neutral probability measures implies that risk-neutral measures can be used for pricing purposes.

Proposition 10.9: Unique Replication

Suppose the market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free. Then any attainable contingent claim X is uniquely replicated in $\mathcal{M}$.

Proof. Suppose there is an attainable contingent claim X and strategies φ and ψ such that

$$V_\varphi(T) = V_\psi(T) = X,$$

but there exists a $\tau < T$ such that

$$V_\varphi(u) = V_\psi(u) \text{ for every } u < \tau \text{ and } V_\varphi(\tau) \neq V_\psi(\tau).$$

Define $A := \{\omega \in \Omega : V_\varphi(\tau, \omega) > V_\psi(\tau, \omega)\}$, then $A \in \mathcal{F}_\tau$ and $\mathbb{P}(A) > 0$ (otherwise just rename the strategies). Define the $\mathcal{F}_\tau$ -measurable random variable $Y := V_\varphi(\tau) - V_\psi(\tau)$ and

consider the trading strategy ξ defined by

$$\xi(u) = \begin{cases} \varphi(u) - \psi(u), & u \leq \tau \\ \mathbb{1}_{A^c}(\varphi(u) - \psi(u)) + \mathbb{1}_A(Y\beta(\tau), 0, \dots, 0), & \tau < u \leq T. \end{cases}$$

Then ξ is predictable, and the self-financing condition Equation (10.16) is clearly true for $t \neq \tau$, and for $t = \tau$ we have using that $\varphi, \psi \in \Phi$

$$\begin{aligned} \xi(\tau) \cdot S(\tau) &= (\varphi(\tau) - \psi(\tau)) \cdot S(\tau) = V_\varphi(\tau) - V_\psi(\tau), \\ \xi(\tau + 1) \cdot S(\tau) &= \mathbb{1}_{A^c}(\varphi(\tau + 1) - \psi(\tau + 1)) \cdot S(\tau) + \mathbb{1}_A Y\beta(\tau) S_0(\tau) \\ &= \mathbb{1}_{A^c}(\varphi(\tau) - \psi(\tau)) \cdot S(\tau) + \mathbb{1}_A (V_\varphi(\tau) - V_\psi(\tau)) \beta(\tau) \beta^{-1}(\tau) \\ &= V_\varphi(\tau) - V_\psi(\tau). \end{aligned}$$

Hence ξ is a self-financing strategy with initial value equal to zero. Furthermore

$$\begin{aligned} V_\xi(T) &= \mathbb{1}_{A^c}(\varphi(T) - \psi(T)) \cdot S(T) + \mathbb{1}_A(Y\beta(\tau), 0, \dots, 0) \cdot S(T) \\ &= \mathbb{1}_A Y\beta(\tau) S_0(T) \geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\mathbb{P}\{V_\xi(T) > 0\} = \mathbb{P}\{A\} > 0.$$

Hence, the market $\mathcal{M}$ contains an arbitrage opportunity with respect to the class Φ of self-financing strategies. But this contradicts the assumption that the market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free. $\square$

This uniqueness property allows us now to define the important concept of an arbitrage price process.

Definition 10.9: Arbitrage Price Process

Suppose the market $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free. Let X be any attainable contingent claim with time T maturity. Then the *arbitrage price process* $\pi_X(t)$, $0 \leq t \leq T$ or simply *arbitrage price* of X in $\mathcal{M}$ is given by the value process of any replicating strategy φ for X .

The synthesis of hedging strategies that replicate the outcome of a contingent claim constitutes a fundamental objective in both theoretical and applied finance. Classical valuation frameworks postulate that an option is perfectly replicated by a dynamic self-financing portfolio of the underlying market assets (Black and Scholes, 1973; Merton, 1974). This mechanism enables the construction of a riskless hedge that neutralises stochastic exposure and informs the delta-hedging strategies employed by market participants.

The resulting pricing functional depends strictly on the assumption of non-satiation to preclude arbitrage opportunities and remains invariant to specific investor utility functions. Consequently, the value derived in an actual market must coincide with that of a hypothetical economy populated entirely by risk-neutral agents (Cox and Ross, 1976). This principle enables the valuation of derivatives as the expected discounted payoff under a specific probability measure, where discounted asset prices form martingales (Harrison and Pliska, 1981).

Proposition 10.10: Risk-Neutral Valuation Formula

The arbitrage price process of any attainable contingent claim X is given by the risk-neutral valuation formula

$$\pi_X(t) = \beta(t)^{-1} \mathbb{E}^*(X\beta(T) \mid \mathcal{F}_t) \quad \forall t = 0, 1, \dots, T, \quad (10.18)$$

where $\mathbb{E}^$ is the expectation operator with respect to an equivalent martingale measure $\mathbb{P}^*$.*

Proof. Since we assume the market is arbitrage-free there exists (at least) an equivalent martingale measure $\mathbb{P}^*$. By Proposition 10.6 the discounted value process $\tilde{V}_\varphi$ of any self-financing strategy φ is a $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale. So for any contingent claim X with maturity T and

any replicating trading strategy $\varphi \in \Phi$ we have for each $t = 0, 1, \dots, T$

$$\begin{aligned}
 \pi_X(t) &= V_\varphi(t) = \beta(t)^{-1} \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \\
 &= \beta(t)^{-1} \mathbb{E}^*(\tilde{V}_\varphi(T) \mid \mathcal{F}_t) \quad (\text{as } \tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \text{ is a } \mathbb{P}^* \text{-martingale}) \\
 &= \beta(t)^{-1} \mathbb{E}^*(\beta(T) V_\varphi(T) \mid \mathcal{F}_t) \quad (\text{undoing the discounting}) \\
 &= \beta(t)^{-1} \mathbb{E}^*(\beta(T) X \mid \mathcal{F}_t) \quad (\text{as } \varphi \text{ is a replicating strategy for } X).
 \end{aligned} \tag{10.19}$$

□

10.5 Market Completeness and Uniqueness of Equivalent Martingale Measures

The last section made clear that attainable contingent claims can be priced using an equivalent martingale measure. In this section we will discuss the question of the circumstances under which all contingent claims are attainable. This would be a very desirable property of the market $\mathcal{M}$, because we would then have solved the pricing question (at least for contingent claims) completely. Since contingent claims are merely non-negative $\mathcal{F}_T$ -measurable random variables in our setting, it should be no surprise that we can give a criterion in terms of probability measures. We start with:

Definition 10.10: Market Completeness

A market $\mathcal{M}$ is complete if every contingent claim is attainable, i.e. for every non-negative $\mathcal{F}_T$ -measurable random variable $X \in X^+$ there exists a replicating self-financing strategy $\varphi \in \Phi$ such that $V_\varphi(T) = X$.

In the case of an arbitrage-free market $\mathcal{M}$ one can even insist on replicating contingent claims by an admissible strategy $\varphi \in \Phi_a$. Indeed, if φ is self-financing and $\mathbb{P}^*$ is an equivalent martingale measure under which discounted prices $\tilde{S}$ are $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingales (such $\mathbb{P}^*$ exist since $\mathcal{M}$ is arbitrage-free and we can hence use the no-arbitrage theorem, [Theorem 10.1](#)) $\tilde{V}_\varphi(t)$ is also a $\mathbb{P}^*$ -martingale, being the martingale transform of the martingale $\tilde{S}$ by φ (see [Proposition 10.6](#)). So

$$\tilde{V}_\varphi(t) = \mathbb{E}^*(\tilde{V}_\varphi(T) \mid \mathcal{F}_t) \quad (t = 0, 1, \dots, T). \tag{10.20}$$

If φ replicates X , $V_\varphi(T) = X \geq 0$, so discounting, $\tilde{V}_\varphi(T) \geq 0$, so the above equation gives $\tilde{V}_\varphi(t) \geq 0$ for each t . Thus all the values at each time t are non-negative, not just the final value at time T , so φ is admissible.

Theorem 10.2: Completeness Theorem

An arbitrage-free market $\mathcal{M}$ is complete if and only if there exists a unique probability measure $\mathbb{P}^$ equivalent to $\mathbb{P}$ under which discounted asset prices are martingales.*

11 Continuous-time Market Model

Part V

Martingale Methods

12 The Black-Scholes Model

13 A Dividend-paying Stock

14 Robustness of the Black-Scholes Approach

14.1 Uncertain Volatility

14.2 European Call and Put Options

15 Discretisation Schemes

Part VI

Monte Carlo Methods

SIMULATION techniques are invaluable in managing complex financial scenarios that involve path-dependent payoffs or distributions without analytical expressions. One prominent application is pricing derivative securities, estimating value at risk, and emulating hedging strategies. Monte Carlo simulation, in particular, proves highly effective for such tasks, offering a blend of simplicity and adaptability as its primary advantages. However, the method's drawback lies in its considerable computational demands, which can be mitigated to some extent. Our approach employs Monte Carlo simulation to generate simulated option price values, which are then compared against outcomes derived from analytical formulas.

16 Generating Random Numbers and Random Variables

17 Quasi Monte Carlo

18 Variance Reduction

Part VII

Grid & Lattice Methods

19 Lattice Methods

20 Finite Difference Methods

21 Contract Sensitivities

21.1 Likelihood Ratio

21.2 Pathwise Derivatives

21.3 Finite-Difference Approximations

Part VIII

Financial Contracts

22 European Options

23 Digital Options

24 Barrier Options

25 American Options

Whereas a European option can be exercised only at a fixed date, an American option can be exercised any time up to its expiration. The value of an American option is the value achieved by exercising optimally. Finding this value entails finding the optimal exercise rule by solving an optimal stopping problem and computing the expected discounted payoff of the option under this rule. The embedded optimisation problem makes this a difficult problem for simulation.

25.1 Approximate Continuation Values

Regression-based methods posit an expression for the continuation value of the form

$$\mathbb{E}[V_{i+1}(X_{i+1}) \mid X_i = x] = \sum_{r=1}^M \beta_{ir} \psi_r(x), \quad (25.1)$$

for some basis functions $\psi_r : \mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and constants $\beta_{ir}, r = 1, \dots, M$. Using the notation C_i for the continuation value at time i , we may equivalently write [eq. \(25.1\)](#) as

$$C_i(x) = \beta_i^\top \psi(x), \quad (25.2)$$

with

$$\beta_i^\top = (\beta_{i1}, \dots, \beta_{iM}), \quad \psi(x) = (\psi_1(x), \dots, \psi_M(x))^\top.$$

One could use different basis functions at different exercise dates, but to simplify notation, we suppress any dependence of ψ on i .

Assuming a relation of the form [eq. \(25.1\)](#) holds, the vector β_i is given by

$$\beta_i = (\mathbb{E}[\psi(X_i)\psi(X_i)^\top])^{-1} \mathbb{E}[\psi(X_i)V_{i+1}(X_{i+1})] \equiv B_\psi^{-1} B_{\psi V}. \quad (25.3)$$

Here, B_ψ is the indicated $M \times M$ matrix (assumed nonsingular) and $B_{\psi V}$ the indicated vector of length M . The variables (X_i, X_{i+1}) inside the expectations have a joint distribution corresponding to the state of the underlying Markov chain at dates i and $i + 1$.

The coefficients β_{ir} could be estimated from observations of pairs $(X_{ij}, V_{i+1}(X_{i+1,j}))$, $j = 1, \dots, b$, each consisting of the state at time i and the corresponding option value at time $i+1$. Consider, in particular, independent paths $(X_{1j}, \dots, X_{mj})$, $j = 1, \dots, b$, and suppose for a moment that the values $V_{i+1}(X_{i+1,j})$ are known. The least-squares estimate of β_i is then given by

$$\widehat{\beta}_i = \widehat{B}_\psi^{-1} \widehat{B}_{\psi V},$$

where $\widehat{B}_\psi$ and $\widehat{B}_{\psi V}$ are the sample counterparts of B_ψ and $B_{\psi V}$. More explicitly, $\widehat{B}_\psi$ is the $M \times M$ matrix with qr entry

$$\frac{1}{b} \sum_{j=1}^b \psi_q(X_{ij}) \psi_r(X_{ij})$$

and $\widehat{B}_{\psi V}$ is the M -vector with r th entry

$$\frac{1}{b} \sum_{k=1}^b \psi_r(X_{ik}) V_{i+1}(X_{i+1,k}). \quad (25.4)$$

All of these quantities can be calculated from function values at pairs of consecutive nodes $(X_{ij}, X_{i+1,j})$, $j = 1, \dots, b$. In practice, V_{i+1} is unknown and must be replaced by estimated values $\widehat{V}_{i+1}$ at downstream nodes. The estimate $\widehat{\beta}_i$ then defines an estimate

$$\widehat{C}_i(x) = \widehat{\beta}_i^\top \psi(x), \quad (25.5)$$

of the continuation value at an arbitrary point x in the state space $\mathbb{R}^d$. This, in turn, defines a procedure for estimating the option value.

Algorithm 1 Regression-Based Pricing Algorithm

- 1: Simulate b independent paths $\{X_{1j}, \dots, X_{mj}\}$, $j = 1, \dots, b$, of the Markov chain.
- 2: At terminal nodes, set $\widehat{V}_{mj} = h_m(X_{mj})$ for $j = 1, \dots, b$.
- 3: **for** $i = m - 1$ **down to** 1 **do**
- 4: Given estimated values $\widehat{V}_{i+1,j}$, $j = 1, \dots, b$, use regression to calculate $\widehat{\beta}_i = \widehat{B}_\psi^{-1} \widehat{B}_\psi V$.
- 5: Compute estimated continuation values $\widehat{C}_i(X_{ij})$ using [eq. \(25.5\)](#).
- 6: **for** $j = 1, \dots, b$ **do**
- 7: Set value based on immediate exercise versus estimated continuation:

$$\widehat{V}_{ij} = \max \left\{ h_i(X_{ij}), \widehat{C}_i(X_{ij}) \right\}. \quad (25.6)$$

- 8: **end for**
- 9: **end for**
- 10: Set $\widehat{V}_0 = (\widehat{V}_{11} + \dots + \widehat{V}_{1b})/b$.

Definition 25.1: American Contingent Claim

An *American contingent claim* $X^a = (X, \mathcal{T}_{[0,T]})$ expiring at time T consists of a sequence of payoffs $(X_t)_{t=0}^T$, where X_t is an $\mathcal{F}_t$ -measurable random variable for $t = 0, 1, \dots, T$, and of the set $\mathcal{T}_{[0,T]}$ of admissible exercise policies.

Proposition 25.1: Arbitrage Price of American Put

The arbitrage price P_t^a of an American put option equals

$$P_t^a = \max_{\tau \in \mathcal{T}_{[t,T]}} \mathbb{E}_{\mathbb{P}^*} \left(\widehat{r}^{-(\tau-t)} (K - S_\tau)^+ \mid \mathcal{F}_t \right), \quad \forall t \leq T. \quad (25.7)$$

Moreover, for any $t \leq T$ the stopping time τ_t^* that realizes the maximum in [eq. \(25.7\)](#) is given by the expression (by convention $\min \emptyset = T$)

$$\tau_t^* = \min \left\{ u \in \{t, t+1, \dots, T\} \mid (K - S_u)^+ \geq P_u^a \right\}. \quad (25.8)$$

Proposition 25.2: Arbitrage Price of American Claim in CRR

For every $t \leq T$, the arbitrage price $\pi(X^a)$ of an arbitrary American claim X^a in the CRR model equals

$$\pi_t(X^a) = \max_{\tau \in \mathcal{T}_{[t,T]}} \mathbb{E}_{\mathbb{P}^*} \left(\widehat{r}^{-(\tau-t)} X_\tau \mid \mathcal{F}_t \right). \quad (25.9)$$

The price process $\pi(X^a)$ can be determined using the following recurrence relation, for every $t \leq T - 1$,

$$\pi_t(X^a) = \max \left\{ X_t, \mathbb{E}_{\mathbb{P}^*} \left(\widehat{r}^{-1} \pi_{t+1}(X^a) \mid \mathcal{F}_t \right) \right\} \quad (25.10)$$

subject to the terminal condition $\pi_T(X^a) = X_T$. In the case of a path-independent American claim X^a with the reward function h we have that, for every $t \leq T - 1$,

$$\pi_t(X^a) = \max \left\{ h(S_t, t), \widehat{r}^{-1} \left(p_* \pi_{t+1}^u(X^a) + (1 - p_*) \pi_{t+1}^d(X^a) \right) \right\}, \quad (25.11)$$

where, for a generic stock price value S_t at time t , we write $\pi_{t+1}^u(X^a)$ and $\pi_{t+1}^d(X^a)$ to denote the values of the price process $\pi(X^a)$ at time $t + 1$ in the nodes that correspond to the upward and downward movements of the stock price during the time-period $[t, t + 1]$, that is, for the values uS_t and dS_t of the stock price at time $t + 1$, respectively.

26 Lookback Options

27 Asian Options

An *Asian option* (or *average option*) defines a class of options, whether European or American style, whose terminal payoff depends on the average asset value over a specific period within the option's life. Due to this averaging feature, Asian options are particularly suitable for thinly traded assets or commodities. Unlike standard options, they are typically less expensive and offer greater robustness against price manipulation near the expiry date.

Asian options were first traded in Tokyo in 1987, and have become particularly popular in commodities trading.

Let T denote the exercise date, and let $0 \leq T_0 < T$ represent the commencement of the averaging period. The payoff at expiry for an Asian call option is defined as

$$C_T^A \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} (A_S(T_0, T) - K)^+, \quad (27.1)$$

where

$$A_S(T_0, T) = \frac{1}{T - T_0} \int_{T_0}^T S_u \, du \quad (27.2)$$

represents the arithmetic average of the asset price over the time interval $[T_0, T]$. Here, K denotes the fixed strike price, and the asset price S is assumed to follow a geometric Brownian motion.

The main difficulty in pricing and hedging Asian options is due to the fact that the random variable $A(T_0, T)$ does not have a lognormal distribution. This feature makes the task of finding an explicit formula for the price of an Asian option surprisingly involved.

For this reason, early studies of Asian options were based either on approximations or on the direct application of the Monte Carlo method. The numerical approach to the valuation of Asian options, is based on the approximation of the arithmetic average using the geometric average. Note first that it is natural to substitute for the continuous-time average $A(T_0, T)$ its discrete-time counterpart

$$A_S^n(T_0, T) = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} S_{T_i}, \quad (27.3)$$

where $T_i = T_0 + i(T - T_0)/n$. Furthermore, the arithmetic average $A_S^n(T_0, T)$ can be replaced with the geometric average, denoted by $G_S^n(T_0, T)$, in what follows. Recall that the random variables S_{T_i} , $i = 1, \dots, n$ are given explicitly by the expression

$$S_{T_i} = S_{T_0} \exp \left(\sigma(W_{T_i}^* - W_{T_0}^*) + \left(r - \frac{1}{2}\sigma^2 \right) (T_i - T_0) \right), \quad (27.4)$$

where W^* is a standard Brownian motion under the martingale measure $\mathbb{P}^*$. Hence the geometric average admits the following representation

$$G_S^n(T_0, T) = \left(\prod_{i=0}^{n-1} S_{T_i} \right)^{1/n} = c S_{T_0} \exp \left(\frac{\sigma}{n} \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} (n-i-1) (W_{T_{i+1}}^* - W_{T_i}^*) \right) \quad (27.5)$$

for a strictly positive constant c . In view of the independence of increments of the Brownian motion, the last formula makes clear that the geometric average $G_S^n(T_0, T)$ has a lognormal distribution under $\mathbb{P}^*$. The approximate Black-Scholes-like formula for the price of an Asian call option can thus be easily found by the direct evaluation of the conditional expectation

$$\tilde{C}_{T_0}^n = e^{-r(T-T_0)} \mathbb{E}_{\mathbb{P}^*} \left((G_S^n(T_0, T) - K)^+ \mid \mathcal{F}_{T_0} \right). \quad (27.6)$$

It appears, however, that such an approach significantly underprices Asian call options. To overcome this deficiency, one may directly approximate the true distribution of the arithmetic average using an approximate distribution, typically a lognormal distribution with the appropriate parameters

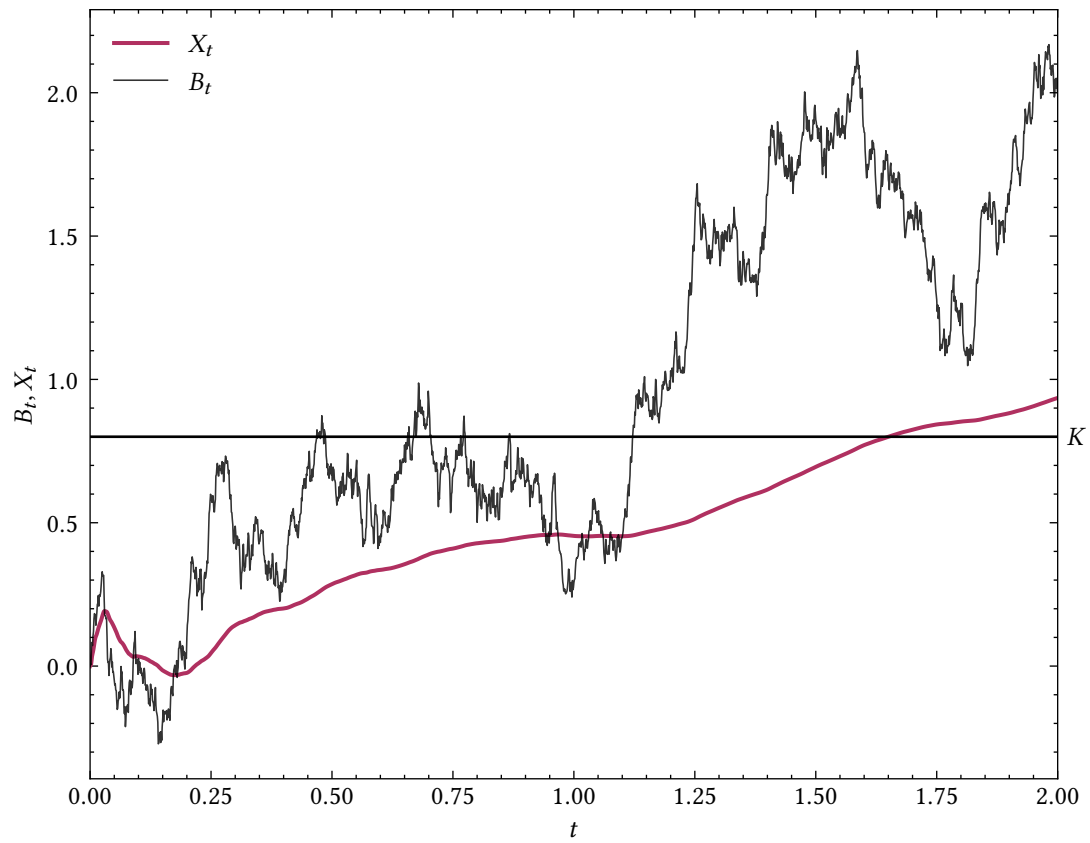


Figure 1: Brownian motion B_t and its moving average X_t

28 Basket Options

29 Quantile Options

Part IX

Hedging

30 Delta Hedging

References

- Black, Fischer and Myron Scholes (1973). “The Pricing of Options and Corporate Liabilities”. In: *Journal of Political Economy* 81.3. Publisher: The University of Chicago Press, pp. 637–654. ISSN: 0022-3808. DOI: [10.1086/260062](https://doi.org/10.1086/260062). URL: <https://www.jstor.org/stable/1831029> (visited on 11/24/2025).
- Cox, John C. and Stephen A. Ross (Jan. 1, 1976). “The valuation of options for alternative stochastic processes”. In: *Journal of Financial Economics* 3.1, pp. 145–166. ISSN: 0304-405X. DOI: [10.1016/0304-405X\(76\)90023-4](https://doi.org/10.1016/0304-405X(76)90023-4). URL: <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/0304405X76900234> (visited on 12/25/2025).
- Harrison, J. Michael and Stanley R. Pliska (Aug. 1, 1981). “Martingales and stochastic integrals in the theory of continuous trading”. In: *Stochastic Processes and their Applications* 11.3, pp. 215–260. ISSN: 0304-4149. DOI: [10.1016/0304-4149\(81\)90026-0](https://doi.org/10.1016/0304-4149(81)90026-0). URL: <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/0304414981900260> (visited on 11/24/2025).
- Merton, Robert C. (1974). “On the Pricing of Corporate Debt: The Risk Structure of Interest Rates”. In: *The Journal of Finance* 29.2. Publisher: [American Finance Association, Wiley], pp. 449–470. ISSN: 0022-1082. DOI: [10.2307/2978814](https://doi.org/10.2307/2978814). URL: <https://www.jstor.org/stable/2978814> (visited on 11/24/2025).

Appendices

A Existence of Lebesgue Measure

B Linear Algebra and Functional Analysis

C Multivariate Differentiation

D Probability and Statistics

E Python Primer

References

- Black, Fischer and Myron Scholes (1973). “The Pricing of Options and Corporate Liabilities”. In: *Journal of Political Economy* 81.3. Publisher: The University of Chicago Press, pp. 637–654. ISSN: 0022-3808. DOI: [10.1086/260062](https://doi.org/10.1086/260062). URL: <https://www.jstor.org/stable/1831029> (visited on 11/24/2025).
- Cox, John C. and Stephen A. Ross (Jan. 1, 1976). “The valuation of options for alternative stochastic processes”. In: *Journal of Financial Economics* 3.1, pp. 145–166. ISSN: 0304-405X. DOI: [10.1016/0304-405X\(76\)90023-4](https://doi.org/10.1016/0304-405X(76)90023-4). URL: <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/0304405X76900234> (visited on 12/25/2025).
- Harrison, J. Michael and Stanley R. Pliska (Aug. 1, 1981). “Martingales and stochastic integrals in the theory of continuous trading”. In: *Stochastic Processes and their Applications* 11.3, pp. 215–260. ISSN: 0304-4149. DOI: [10.1016/0304-4149\(81\)90026-0](https://doi.org/10.1016/0304-4149(81)90026-0). URL: <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/0304414981900260> (visited on 11/24/2025).
- Merton, Robert C. (1974). “On the Pricing of Corporate Debt: The Risk Structure of Interest Rates”. In: *The Journal of Finance* 29.2. Publisher: [American Finance Association, Wiley], pp. 449–470. ISSN: 0022-1082. DOI: [10.2307/2978814](https://doi.org/10.2307/2978814). URL: <https://www.jstor.org/stable/2978814> (visited on 11/24/2025).